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YALE POLITICAL MAGAZINE

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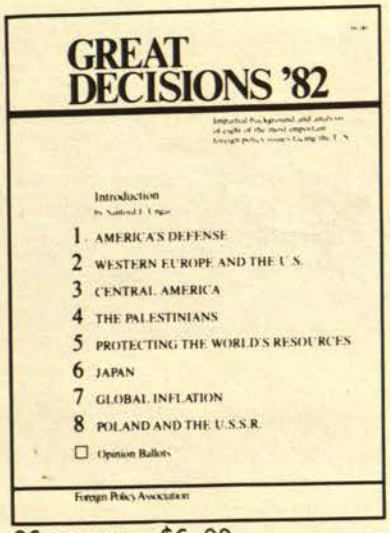
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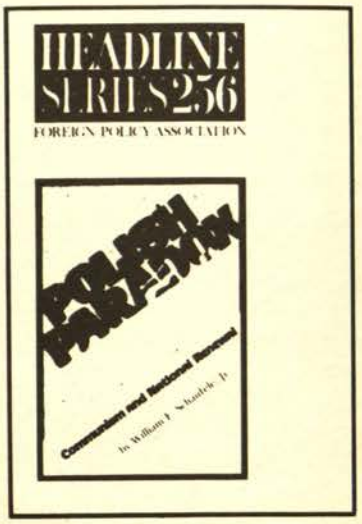
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American Mishandling of Nato Nuclear Policy

Fred Chernoff

The most important European defense issue today is NATO's plan to install new long-range nuclear weapons in Western Europe. President Reagan has heartily endorsed the plan, which well serves his goal of bolstering NATO military strength against what he sees as a serious Soviet threat. However, the Reagan administration's policy on NATO defense, arms control and its singularly clumsy diplomacy in Europe have gravely imperiled the long-range weapons program. President Reagan's mismanagement of foreign policy has pushed the NATO nuclear program, which he so strongly supports, to the brink of collapse.

Defense policy in Western Europe has reemerged as a central political issue. It has taken on an importance, at least for the present, equal to traditional economic questions. This is reflected clearly in the western European press and in recent election campaigning. The rapid growth in the most powerful Soviet weapons threatening western Europe has contributed to the interest in defense policy. Public discussion has centered on the nuclear weapons build-up in Europe. The NATO plan to install new theater nuclear forces (TNF) has dominated the discussion for the past three years, and is likely to continue to do so for as long into the future.

The Soviet challenge

For a number of years the NATO defense ministers have concluded their semi-annual meetings "noting with concern" the continuing build-up of Warsaw Pact nuclear forces, particularly of intermediate-range missiles. Many of these missiles are deployed in the western portion of the Soviet Union and are capable of striking targets anywhere in Europe. While estimates of Soviet conventional, that is, non-nuclear, military superiority vary from "slight" to "enormous," there is little question in the West that the Warsaw Pact does indeed possess clear superiority in conventional military strength.

Alliance leaders are concerned about the prospect of nuclear parity between NATO and the Warsaw Pact because they depend on their nuclear edge to deter a Soviet attack. They fear parity could bring about a nuclear stalemate and neutralize NATO's nuclear forces in the event of a Soviet attack with conventional forces. Alternatively, if both sides were to use nuclear weapons, the results would be worse still. NATO leaders are most worried by the ss-20 intermediate-range ballistic missiles and the aircraft known in the West as the 'Backfire'—a highly capable and sophisticated medium range bomber. The ss-20 is troubling to western Europeans because, unlike NATO nuclear weapons, it is highly mobile and invulnerable to a pre-emptive strike; and it is very accurate, capable of striking targets anywhere in western Europe.

Fred Chernoff is a second year graduate student in political science. This paper is based largely on research conducted at the International Institute for Strategic Studies, London and the Norwegian Institute for International Affairs.

NATO's proposal

Because protests from Western leaders did not stop the Soviet Union from continuing to deploy it's new weapons, NATO leaders chose to take more vigorous action. They proposed to install new medium and intermediate range missiles. These include 464 cruise missiles and 108 Pershing-2 missiles. The cruise missiles are to be stationed in Belgium, West Germany, Great Britain, the Netherlands, and Italy. Because of their shorter range, all of the Pershing-2s are to be stationed in West Germany.

The NATO nuclear arsenal in Europe currently includes land-mines, artillery shells, and short- and medium- range ballistic missiles. Some of these can reach targets in eastern Europe, but none are able to reach the Soviet Union. The new missiles alter the balance in Europe, particularly in the eyes of a Soviet defense planner, in that they give NATO, the ability to threaten the Soviet homeland with missiles based in western Europe. The number of missile launchers in Europe will not be changed. An older missile is retired for every new one NATO deploys.

Soviet reactions

The change in the balance prompted the Soviet Union to launch its most vigorous lobbying campaign in years, in an attempt to block passage of the proposal. Campaigns in northern Europe were particularly intense, as the Soviet Union accurately saw these countries to be the most susceptible to such lobbying. These countries live directly in the shadow of Soviet military might and also have the strongest anti-nuclear constituencies. The Soviet Union considered this one of the most important issues East-West in recent years.

In addition to the usual fulminations and indignant threats, General Secretary Brezhnev made the unusual offer of withdrawing 10,000 troops and 1,000 tanks from East Germany. Such an offer is important because any conflict in Europe is likely to begin, and almost certain to include combat, in this area. However, the

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by Joseph Wisniewski, University of Toronto

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'There is little question in the West that the Warsaw Pact does possess clear superiority in conventional military strength.'

military significance of Mr. Brezhnev's offer was dubious, since redeployment sites were not specified; there was no guarantee that, in time of crisis, these forces could not quickly be moved back into East Germany.

Origins of TNF modernization

The suggestion to install new intermediate range missiles in western Europe did not originate in the US; Chancellor Helmut Schmidt first proposed it in 1977. He argued, much as President De Gaulle did fifteen years earlier, that America's loss of strategic nuclear superiority would undercut the credibility of any threat to retaliate against the USSR with strategic nuclear weapons, in the event of a Warsaw Pact attack on western Europe. Mr. Schmidt was referring specifically to the party embodied in SALT-II. Europeans greatly fear "decoupling" of American strategic nuclear forces from western European security, a fact that was demonstrated once again by the rapid and intense reaction last October to President Reagan's musings about the possibility of confining a nuclear war to the European theater. Mr. Schmidt's doubts were reinforced by Henry Kissinger. In a widely noted speech the same year, Mr. Kissinger asserted that now the US cannot realistically be expected to use its strategic weapons to defend western Europe against a Soviet invasion.

The TNF plan is designed to enhance western European security in several ways. The plan raises the possibility of strikes into the Soviet homeland, if a theatre nuclear war were to begin—and any war in Europe could escalate to the theatre nuclear level. Furthermore, the plan addresses the issue of decoupling. The new missles,which are capable of reaching Moscow, are strategic, yet they are part of NATO and based in Europe. They introduce uncertainty into Soviet calculations by preventing them from neatly distinguishing the scenarios for use of NATO's tactical and American's strategic nuclear weapons. In this way the TNF plan provides a link between American Minuteman and Titan ICBMs in the US and tactical weapons in Europe.

Alliance leaders came to realize that several key countries could not support they plan, since it posed too great an internal political risk. Groups in both the ruling and opposition parties in these countries spoke out against the plan. After close cooperation between several countries, the political risk of supporting the plan was adeptly handled by adding a pledge to seek negotiations with the Soviet Union for the limitation of these Euro-strategic weapons. The final version of the plan, passed by NATO ministers 12 December 1979, was a dual track proposal that envisioned both TNF modernization and arms control talks with the Soviet Union.

The plan passed only because of creative diplomacy by the Scandinavian members and because of the constant contact that was maintained between relevant ministries of the northern European countries. Even with this careful coordination, the plan barely escaped defeat. Two of the key countries, Belgium and the Netherlands, voted merely not to veto the plan. They postponed a final decision—Belgium for six months and the Netherlands for two years. However, because no deployments were scheduled to take place within two years of the meeting, these votes satisfied alliance leaders. Belgium and the Netherlands were politically able to keep from vetoing the plan only because the arms control talks provision had been added. The political value of the arms limitation talks clause for the leaders of these countries was that it allowed them, in the eyes of their constituents, to shift more of the burden of slowing the arms race onto the Soviet Union.

Lessons from the neutron bomb

Western countries and the Soviet Union alike considered the TNF plan to be of great importance. But its importance alone accounts neither for the unusual care that was taken to negotiate a proposal acceptable to all NATO members nor for the extraordinary consultations that lead to coordination of voting. In fact, a recent coordination-failure of prodigious proportions had just cast doubt on alliance cohesion, and leaders strove to avoid repeating the same mistakes. In hindsight, NATO leaders understood that a lack of adequate communications between the parties was a major cause of the shambles that resulted from the decision on the enhanced radiation warhead or "neutron bomb."

The neutron bomb was to be produced in the US and deployed in the Federal Republic of Germany. But communications between the two countries were poor. Chancellor Schmidt wanted the weapon but could not at first openly support it because of the fervent opposition then present in Germany and northern Europe. The resistance to deployment of the neutron bomb from his own party, the SPD, as well as from others, can best be described as hysteria. For example, the national chairman of the SPD, Egon Bahr, denounced it as the greatest perversion of human thinking ever—no mild charge. Yet two years later, when France announced its neutron weapons program (which even included suggestions of deployment on German soil), not a word of protest was heard from Herr Bahr. Initial reaction to disclosure of the American neutron bomb project can hardly be called reasoned.

Chancellor Schmidt skillfully maneuvered through the panic and was eventually able to state that, if the US were to produce the weapon (as he had been led to believe), West Germany would be willing to accept its deployment. This step was very risky for Mr. Schmidt,

but he felt the risk was worth the deterrent value the new weapon would provide. Soon after this announcement, however, President Carter effectively killed the weapon, stating that a decision would be postponed—and of course, he never again considered the matter. Chancellor Schmidt took a grave political risk only to be publicly humiliated by President Carter. The fury and sense of betrayal one must imagine Mr. Schmidt felt after the neutron bomb had been withdrawn might have been avoided had there been better communication between the principal parties.

Alliance leaders believed closer consultation would have prevented this disaster in alliance relations and the resulting blow to NATO prestige. They took great pains to see that such a fiasco would not soon recur. There were extensive consultations between the relevant ministries of the countries involved, prior to the December 1979 NATO vote. The result of these meetings was a proposal that was not vetoed, despite both the intensive campaign by Moscow against the plan and the genuine opposition to it by important elements in NATO governments. NATO leaders learned at least some lessons about the necessity of consultations from the political catastrophe of the neutron bomb decision.

Short term learners

But the lessons seemed to be soon forgotten. The improvements in consultation appear to have ceased with the inauguration of Mr. Reagan. Mistakes are sometimes made in anticipating public reaction to new issues. The Carter administration made such a mistake with the neutron bomb. Likewise, it is inevitable that the Reagan team will occassionally err in forecasting reaction to new proposals and consequently will sometimes take unilateral action when consultation is needed. It is, however, almost incomprehensible that the Reagan administration should repeat the same error on the same issue. Yet this is just what happened. With no prior consultation, the US announced last August that the neutron bomb would be produced.

President Reagan's decision to build the neutron bomb involved the same allies and the same problems as did Mr. Carter's decision three years earlier; many components of the two cases are identical. This case, therefore, presents the most striking example of the Reagan administration's ignorance of the lessons so recently learned. The administration has, in its first year, made many other moves that similarly betray an ignorance of these lessons and of the problems Europeans face in sharing both an alliance with the US and a continent with the USSR.

The failure of the Reagan administration to comprehend the problems of trans-Atlantic cooperation was demonstrated vividly by the explanation offered for the August neutron bomb decision. Although produced by the US, the weapon is designed for deployment in western Europe. Consent of the some European countries is essential; otherwise the US would spend billions on a weapon that cannot be deployed. Deployment clearly depends on political forces in several countries. Yet Secretary Weinberger "explained" that Europeans' views are to be ignored on this matter lest they be given "veto power" over US weapons decisions. To regard this position as absurd is generous. Many saw it not simply as muddleheaded thinking, but rather as a calculated strategem to force the neutron bomb onto the Europeans heavy-handedly; once the weapon has been built, it will be much more difficult for them to refuse to accept its stationing on their soil.

The Reagan administration hopes to see a number of new weapons deployed, among the most important of which are NATO's long-range theater nuclear forces. However, President Reagan's careless diplomacy in Europe together with this unrestrained pursuit of new weapons programs are leading to the precise opposite of the desired result. Neither of these alone would cause such serious problems for the TNF plan. European leaders are gravely worried about the growth of Soviet Euro-strategic nuclear forces, particularly the large number of ss-20s. They believe these weapons will be directly translated into political leverage as more and more western Europeans come to feel helpless against a Soviet attack. These leaders hope to see the trend toward Soviet supremacy halted by new NATO deployments, negotiated limitations, or a combination of both; but they are aware that all of these paths will be foreclosed if the Reagan administration continues on its present course.

Credibility in Europe

The TNF plan avoided a veto in 1979 only because the arms control pledge was included. Two years after the NATO vote, it remains true that without a commitment to pursue arms control in Europe the TNF plan will collapse. Europeans must believe that the US sincerely desires to limit Euro-strategic weapons. If they seriously doubt US sincerity, the Europeans are certain to reject the TNF plan. At the same time of the 1979 decision, President Carter had just negotiated SALT-II, which (even though never ratified) provided him with credibility as a serious advocate of arms control.

The Reagan administration has yet to establish its credibility as a proponent of arms control. Moreover, it has acted positively to establish its lack of credibility by verbal provocation of the Soviet Union, by procurement of new strategic weapons and by delaying the start of negotiations as long as possible. Past negotiations have shown that agreements on scope, quantity, quality, counting methods, verification, etc., can take years. Europeans see the Reagan administration's attempt to delay the talks as a way to ensure that no agreement could be reached before the first missiles are installed. The talks began in Geneva last November only because of pressure exerted by the European allies. President Reagan's reluctance to begin the talks is taken by Europeans as an ominous sign of disregard for arms control.

'The Reagan administration has yet to establish its credibility as a proponent of arms control.'

If the Geneva talks do not appear to constitute a genuine effort to produce results, there is a very strong chance that the TNF plan will be scrapped. Without West Germany the TNF plan cannot succeed. Yet Chancellor Schmidt, the continent's staunchest supporter of the plan, made it clear in his addresses prior to the 1979 vote that West Germans did not wish to be the only strategic target in northern Europe. Although West Germany then voted to accept the new missles, Schmidt wanted to condition it upon their acceptance by Belgium or the Netherlands. These are the two countries that have not yet given approval to the plan and for which approval is most in doubt. At the December 1979 NATO meeting, the Netherlands was the member most reluctant to go along with TNF modernization. Although they now have a new government, the Netherlands still has Europe's strongest popular opposition to the arms race.

In Belgium, approval of the TNF plan has yet to be given and is becoming increasingly uncertain. Opposition to the arms race combine with instability in the coalition governments to create formidable obstacles for TNF. New general elections were held in November 1981 for the third time in less than five years. The coalitions are becoming weaker and weaker as polarization continues between the Flemish and Waloon communities and as unemployment remains the highest in the Common Market. As the coalitions become weaker, any major issue, such as TNF modernization, poses an ever greater threat of bringing down the government. Furthermore, the Socialist party firmly opposes the TNF plan; and as the largest Waloon party, it is likely to be included in future governments, as it has been in all recent coalitions.

The perils for TNF modernization are even greater than these problems alone suggest. West Germany itself may withdraw support for the plan until there is evidence of progress in the Geneva talks. Recent reports indicate that in the SPD, the main partner in the ruling coalition, only one regional association unconditionally supports TNF modernization. This ensures only 20 (of a total 437) votes for the plan at the upcoming SPD congress. However, a majority favors the plan if progress (a term yet to be defined) is made in Geneva. It is then quite possible that Germany will restate its position on TNF and require progress at the Geneva talks before permitting deployment of the missiles. The Reagan administration's delays in starting the Geneva talks may, therefore, preclude, rather than assure, deployment on schedule of the new Pershing-2 missiles. The course followed by the administration has jeopardized completion of NATO's TNF modernization plan.

The American backfire

Europeans who have supported the TNF program have done so because they have believed it would enhance security. The Reagan administration's inept foreign policy has led them to wonder whether it might undermine, rather than promote, security. Three elements of Mr. Reagan's foreign policy have raised these fears: his confrontational approach to U.S.-Soviet relations, explicit statements that betray either a lack of consideration of or a lack of concern for European security problems, and a willingness to arm without a corresponding interest in seeking arms limitations.

This autumn, news reports have shown massive demonstrations against TNF modernization in all major European capitals. However, it is not the TNF plan itself, but rather Mr. Reagan's finger on the trigger, that so disturbs European peace campaigners. This is evident from the changes in European attitudes; although the TNF plan was passed over two years ago, it has only been in the last several months, after all three elements of President Reagan's foreign policy have become fully manifest, that the demonstrations began to draw the vast support that we have lately seen.

It would seem that the first year of the Reagan administration should have been a time for US gains in western Europe: the Soviet Union has put off western Europeans by shaking up the leadership in Poland, and imposing a military government there; remaining bogged down in an internationally abhorred war in Afghanistan; and running an armed submarine aground beside a Swedish naval base. Yet the Reagan administration has managed, against the odds, to make US foreign policy the primary question in westernEurope with offhand remarks about limited nuclear war in Europe, verbal threats against the Soviet Union, flat contradictions between cabinet members over NATO nuclear policy and evident presumptions of American supremacy in NATO affairs.

These achievements of the blundering foreign policy team, together with the Reagan administration's unbridled enthusiasm for new weapons programs have seriously endangered NATO's TNF modernization plan. If President Reagan cannot restrain his zeal for armaments or show more interest in limiting Eurostrategic weapons, he will succeed in undoing the careful work of NATO officials, President Carter and other heads of NATO member states. Mr. Reagan's passion for weapons acquisitions will then backfire and lead to the demise of the most important NATO weapons program to be considered during his presidency.•

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YALE POLITICAL MAGAZINE

United Nations — Love It Or Leave It

Diana West

The only "united" thing about the United Nations is the Third World. Comprised of more 100 nations, it often votes as a monolith, and is thus able to swing the majority. If it ever was, the UN is no longer an international parliament of men dedicated to universal principles. Instead, it is a coalition of distinctly different blocs whose criminal neglect of principle is sanctioned time after time by majority rule.

The majority ruling the General Assembly has spent disproportionate amounts of its time and effort on the controversies surrounding two particular countries, South Africa and Israel. These two nations have virtually nothing in common except that they regularly incur the wrath of the Third World. Judging by a chronology of the UN's activities, one would have to conclude that these two nations are the most notorious violators of human rights and the major threats to international peace.

The UN regularly condemns the South African government for the racist principles upon which it is founded. Although these principles sanction the denial of political and other freedoms to South African blacks, they do not sanction genocide. This notion may sound like an attempt to defend South African racism; however, it is actually no defense at all, only a prelude to a description of even greater offenders against humanity.

Throughout post-colonial Africa, there have been many cases of genocidal strife. Consider the plight of the Ibos in Nigeria, the Hutus in Burundi, or the Asians in Uganda: the United Nations hasn't . Curiously enough, slaughter by the tens of thousands does not attract the attention of the General Assembly. Why not?

Third World solidarity at the UN

Over the last twenty years, African and other Third World nations have derived much of their world po ver from their ability to present a solid front at the ' N. They maintain this unity by focusing the UN's attention on white minority rule. Thus, the UN has regularly condemned Portugal, Rhodesia, and South Africa, nations in violation of the UN Charter for their official racist policies. However, more flagrant violators of the Charter have received little, if any, UN attention.

Consider the case of Equatorial Guinea where Francisco Macias Nguema ruled for eleven years, rivalling, and possibly surpassing, Idi Amin of Uganda in brutality. When Macias was finally overthrown in 1979, he had murdered over fifty thousand of his countrymen and driven over half of the population, 150,000 people, into exile. Macias was full of fun, celebrating such Christian festivals as Christmas Eve by having hundreds of victims tortured to death before chanting crowds. The year after he took office, he had a group of his enemies hanged in public while lousdpeakers blared the lilting tune "Those Were The Days."

Macias, the fifty thousand he killed and the one hundred fifty thousand he forced into exile, received little more than a passing glance from the UN: it only had eyes for South Africa. Apparently, it is more immoral for whites to deny blacks the vote in South Africa than it is for blacks to murder blacks in Equatorial Guinea. Or Somalia. Or Ethiopia. Or Uganda. Or Nigeria.

This paradox may be explained in part by the fact that tribal passions, stronger than racial passions, are not fit subjects for international concern: debate might divide the African bloc and shatter Third World unity, destroying its leverage within the General Assembly. Ironically, colonialism has provided a boon to the Third World, a banner under which it can unite in self-righteous fervor. The international cause against racial discrimination is the source of its political strength: an inquiry into contemporary genocide would reveal its moral weakness.

Totalitarian moralists

The UN has expended a tremendous amount of energy in its effort to eliminate one type of minority-rule, the *white* minority kind in Africa. Governments which do not represent their peoples are perfectly acceptable to the General Assembly so long as the governors are not white and the governed are not black. Otherwise, anything goes. This attitude must account for the UN's silence in the face of the proliferation of repressive and often murderous dictatorships throughout the world. We are thus faced with the bizarre spectacle of repressive governments championing political freedom and human rights for South Africa. These governments cannot possibly justify their position on the grounds that they abhor the subjugation of one group by another, for that is the very practice in which they are themselves engaged.

Before Rhodesia became Zimbabwe, a massive campaign was launched to eliminate its white-minority government. In 1973, the UN Security Council adopted measures designed to extend and improve the sanctions already in existence against Rhodesia. As a result of this vote, the United States became entangled in a hypocritical snarl. In order to observe the sanctions, the US Government found itself buying chrome at a price far higher than Rhodesia's—from the Soviet Union. In other words, in its effort to strike a blow for democracy and human rights, the United States withdrew its business from Rhodesia and took it to the Soviet Union, that bastion of liberty and justice for all. Without a

Diana West '83 is Associate Editor of the *Yale Political Magazine*. A history major, she has written for the *Yale Daily News* and *Los Angeles Magazine*.

'Very simply, at the United Nations the convention is to ignore Soviet infractions against the stated ideals of the organization.'

single doubt, any injustices practiced by the state of Rhodesia are enforced on a Wagnerian scale within the USSR.

It is fascinating to note that this greatest colonizer of them all, the Soviet Union, is virtually never called to task for its imperialist expansionism. What reproach it does receive is mild, rather like weak tea. No one ever calls the Soviet Union's vast territorial subjugation of Eastern Europe colonialism, but what else is it if not colonialism? It escapes scrutiny because over the years we have been trained to suspend our standards automatically whenever we consider the place of the Soviet Union in the world order, and the convention at the United Nations is to promote this double standard.

So confident are the Soviets of this inexplicably-granted immunity, they are not at all embarassed or reticent about passionately inveighing against those practices in which they are themselves engaged. With the deepest sincerity Soviet Ambassador Gromyko can explain to the General Assembly that "the only wish of the...States who fell victim to imperialist aggression is to retrieve what was seized from them by force. And they are right." The single word deleted from this quotation is "Arab," but try "Eastern European" in its place.

Later in the same speech, Gromyko was able to deliver the following comments with a straight face:

> No one should yield to the temptation to teach others how to manage their internal affairs. It is no secret that there are some who would like to impose their own domestic practices upon others, but internal practices, internal laws, constitute the line on the threshold of each State at which others must stop.

The Soviet Delegation was responding to the Jackson Amendment which had just passed that week in 1973. This Amendment denied Most Favored Nation status to those countries that interfered with the emigration of minorities. The Soviets were outraged by what they considered to be a gross violation of States' internal policies. Even if we were to consider Eastern Europe as a permanent exception to all such injuctions concerning the privacy of internal affairs, Gromyko's twisted logic would confound even the mind of Lewis Carroll. Holding forth on the evils of apartheid and racial discrimination, Gromyko was soon exhorting the United Nations "to contribute to an early and complete elimination of these shameful survivors of colonialism, wherever they exist be it Angola or Mozambique, Guinea-Bissau or Southern Rhodesia, or South or South-West Africa." Perhaps these states are lacking the kind of threshold "at which others must stop."

A pattern of silence

Very simply, at the United Nations the convention is to ignore Soviet infractions against the stated ideals of the organization. Consider the pattern which has become firmly established in Eastern European affairs. Every ten years or so, the Eastern European natives become restless—i.e. much more enthusiastic about Western ideas of freedom than is at all good for them. Consequently, every ten years or so, the Soviets and their lackeys crush the mounting resistance. The landmark cases are, of course, Hungary, Czechoslovakia, and now Poland, What kind of action has the United Nations taken at these times?

1968 began in Czechoslovakia as a year of liberalization and hope, the phenomenon of which has gone down in history as "Prague Spring." The year ended in repression and failure after a successful Soviet military invasion and subsequent international acquiesence. At first, the movement of Warsaw Pact tanks rolling throught the streets of Prague stirred the UN Security Council into action. For three days in August, 1968 the Council considered the situation, finally coming up with an eight-power draft resolution condemning Soviet intervention and asking the Warsaw Pact States to withdraw their troops from Czechoslovakia. So far, so good. Four days after this resolution, however, the Czechoslovakian representative at the UN declared that his government had not requested Security Council consideration of the situation. (Of course it hadn't! The Dubcek government leaders had been spirited away to

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Moscow for 'consultation' and were incapable of asking anyone anything.) The delegate requested that the item be removed from the agenda because of Czechoslovakian agreements with the Soviet Union. The "Czech" assurance was all the Security Council needed to hear so that, without further ado, it might dismiss the matter from its thoughts. The worrisome week finally came to an end.

Equating Zionism and racism

No one could possibly consider the UN's work and worth without examining its treatment of the Middle East. The record suggests that the United Nations resolution that established the state of Israel is a source of great historical anguish to the organization. Volumes of reproach, censure, and condemnation swell the official record, the likes of which result from no issue other than racial discrimination in the southern regions of Africa. In 1975, the General Assembly tested the wind, found it favorable, and launched a resolution equating Zionism with racism. Perhaps inspired by the old two-birds-with-one-stone idea, the General Assembly had decided to coordinate its invective against the white governments in Africa with the Jewish government in Israel, despite the vast philosophical and historical differences which separate two nations. This effort produced the Zionism-is-racism resolution of November 1975.

It came on the heels of the new pro-American alignment in Egypt. The Soviets, just having been maneuvered out of Egypt by Henry Kissinger and Anwar Sadat, were working on a policy to thwart the Egypt/America rapport. According to Daniel P. Moynihan, United States Senator (D-NY) and former Ambassador to the United Nations, "the Zionism-is-racism resolution in November of the same year was itself one part of this sabotage campaign." The vote lent legitimacy, however spurious, to the ideological warfare waged against Israel within the vaulted chambers of the United Nations.

"Racism" is a buzz-word at the UN: its equation with Zionism has had but one purpose and that purpose has been to render Israel an outcast among nations. *The same day* the Zionism-is racism resolution passed, the General Assembly extended an invitation to the Palestinian Liberation Organization to participate in all discussions held under the auspices of the United Nations pertaining to Middle Eastern affairs on the grounds that a peaceful solution is impossible without PLO participation. Israel denigrated, the PLO glorified—all in a day's work.

Three days later, the PLO's al-Fatah planted a bomb in Zion Square in Jerusalem killing seven teenagers and wounding and maiming scores of passers-by. The formula, according to a featured program on Damascus radio, was simple. "(The commandos) take one copy of the resolutions adopted by the UN, mix them with TNT and blow up Zion Square...Now the resolutions are turning into deeds."

That same year (1975), delegates from the Arab nations were able to swing the Third World majority bloc behind them at the United Nations Congress of Crime Prevention and Treatment of Offenders. There they voted to erase political terrorism from the list of international terrorist activities requiring stricter control. Obviously, this Congress was not seriously interested in discouraging terrorism: that might go against the interests of too many of its present and prospective delegates.

The PLO and similar groups had never before required resolutions as a rationale for blowing people up; the UN resolution equating Zionism with racism, however, became a useful propaganda tool. Two days after the adopting of the resolution, the Soviet news agency Tass carried a long and approving commentary;

> ...there is nothing unexpected in the stand taken by the United Nations. This year alone, Zionism has been condemned by the OAU (Organization of African Unity) summit in Kampala, by the non-aligned countries' foreign ministers' conference in Lima, the U.N. world conference to mark the International Women's Year held in Mexico City, and other international forums. All this goes to show that the problem has long been crying for solution. The General Assembly of the U.N. has just summed up the conclusions which have long been drawn by the broad circles of world opinion.

Five years down the road, the Soviets were still getting mileage out of Zionism-is racism resolution. An October, 1980 edition of *Pioneerskaya Pravda,* a magazine for 9-14 year old Soviets, cited the resolution as though it were of great consequence, to buttress an article warning against the evils of Zionism:

> The United Nations described Zionism as a form of racism and racial discrimination. More and more people today are beginning to realize that Zionism is present day facism.

This is a perfect example of the way in which the United Nations and its affiliated organizations confer legitimacy upon the preposterous and the distorted. This kind of propaganda seems to have possessed Soviets both at home and abroad, and their campaign to condemn Israel as an outlaw state, indeed, as a non-state has been all too successful.

Palestine: a case study in discrimination

The UN has played a principal part in this smear campaign. In 1978, Cuba, head of the Soviet stooges, became head of the non-aligned nations, a conference of Third World member-states which profess neutrality. At a 1979 summit meeting, these states reaffirmed that "racism, including Zionism, racial discrimination, and especially apartheid, constituted crimes against humanity." Apartheid and Zionism, South Africa and Israel. Politics certainly does make the strangest bedfellows.

When the General Assembly most recently rejected South Africa's credentials, it denied her a seat in the Assembly. It also denied her the right to speak in the debates over Namibian independence. If the terrorist PLO is entitled to participate at the UN on the grounds that its presence is essential to a peaceful solution, why does the same logic not apply to South Africa?

'The only way the US can protest the morally decrepit double standard... at the United Nations is to reject the UN itself.

The Palestinians get all sorts of favors denied to every other refugee group in the world. There are at least ten million homeless refugees, and half of them are homeless in Africa. In the last General Assembly, two resolutions took note of the situation, urging "speedy solutions." The Palestinians, however, were the subject of at least thirteen resolutions, one of which listed their "inalienable rights:" the right to return, to self-determination, national independence, and sovereignty. Similar "inalienable rights" have not yet been invoked for the Rwandans, the Vietnamese, the Eritreans, the Ugandans, or any other refugees.

The Palestinians enjoy special rights not because they have been displaced, but because they have been displaced by Israel. Similarly, the United Nations has santioned armed struggle against South Africa not because human rights are denied, but because they are denied by South Africa. In the words of one United Nations employee, "it is convenient to define racism as something that happens in South Africa and self-determination as something that Israel denies."

The United Nations Charter includes a series of principles intended to serve as a yardstick for national and international conduct. All member states agree to act in accordance with them. To apply these principles to some countries and not to others is discriminatory, just as it is discriminatory to endow some people with rights and deny them to others. Discrimination, however, is the rule rather than the exception at the UN. Apparently, it would interfere with the double standard if the UN were to apply neutral principles of human rights and political freedom universally. It should be quite clear by now that within the halls of the United Nations there is no room for consistency, decency, or justice: the same committee which rejected the South African delegation on the grounds that it did not represent the people of that country accepted the credentials of the blood thirsty Pol Pot "regime" a few weeks later. The utter hypocrisy rotting inside the notion that justice is in some way served by barring South Africa from a forum which includes such exemplars of human rights and political freedoms as the Soviet Union, the People's Republic of China, and over one hundred other repressive governments would astound even an Orwellian world.

The United States, as the principal author of the UN Charter, the thickest bankroll behind the project and the host to the organization, has a responsibility to the principles for which the United Nations is supposed to stand. The US has shirked this responsibility by tolerating the repeated abuse of truth and justice. As a minority of one in the UN General Assembly and Security Council, the US cannot command much authority by exercising its right to vote: its opposition, that being the Third World and the Soviet bloc, is overwhelming.

The only way the United States can protest the morally decrepit double standard so faithfully observed at the United Nations is to reject the United Nations itself. The US pays more than 25% of the UN's administrative budget which amounted to 370.9 million taxpayer dollars in 1980—not to mention the $562.6 million the US contributed to specialized UN agencies and projects. In addition to this essential monetary support, the very presence of the United States, as leader of the Free World, confers legitimacy to the organization, legitimacy to a parliamentary charade. It seems probable that without the United States the organization would crumble.

What would this mean? No longer would US dollars provide terrorist leader Yassir Arafat a forum from which to denounce Israel, or Soviet Ambassador Gromyko a forum from which to denounce meddling in the internal affairs of states everywhere. No longer would the United States be party to the perversion of truth and the democratic process by participating in an organization which can vote to equate Zionism with racism but cannot muster the courage to utter the word "Soviet Union" in a discussion of human rights.

The voice of the United Nations speaks with a deeply forked tongue and we of the West have listened unprotesting for too long. If we truly hold human rights and political freedoms sacred, we must immediately withdraw from the United Nations. There, true rights and freedoms are only trampled into the mud.•

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Separatism: Feminism Gone Wrong

Yale Political Monthly Vol 3 No 3 Spring 1982

Carmen Dixon

Last fall the Yale community was confronted with a radical feminist manifesto. The article, entitled "Separatism," appeared in *Aurora,* a feminist magazine. Signed by "Chicks Against Pricks", (CHAPS) a self-described group of radical lesbian feminists, "Separatism" portrays men as brutal, insolent, insensitive beings who enjoy the rape and dismemberment of women. Modern American society, CHAPS writes, is marked by male supremacy and domination; it is a patriarchy. Because CHAPS believes that the traditional political means of change would lead to "absorption," it advocates total separation from male-dominated society.

If nothing else, the article was widely read. Some were shocked by its hostility and profanity, others were disgusted or angered by it. Despite its misperceptions, the article made the Yale community aware that there were separatist women who felt so hostile and bitter that they were ready to reject most of society.

True feminism

Their attitude did not arise in a vacuum. But to understand its causes is not to admit its claims. One can be a feminist, dedicated to equality between the sexes, without being either a radical or a lesbian.

The CHAPS article took the Yale community by surprise. Most men were angry that violent lesbians had even been given a chance to express their hostilities. Many women were less surprised, but offended by the article's profanity. Many were also afraid that men would believe that CHAPS represented activist Yale women. Their next reaction was anger that they would even have to worry about such a misunderstanding.

For all its faults, "Separatism," and the other articles in the fall issue of *Aurora,* started a debate which should lead to a better understanding of feminist perceptions. However, the plan advocated in the article—total separatism from men—is a warped one.

The women's struggle is necessary: there are blatant and at times alarming inequalities between the sexes. The feminist grievances have been examined again and again yet there has been too little progress. Men continue to take advantage of and oppress women: women are counseled to become nurses instead of doctors, women are denied promotions because of their sex, women are labelled "castrating and unfeminine" if they are aggressive and determined. Radical feminist rage is not totally unfounded. As Robert Larson said,

> The woman is caught in a web of helpless frustration—too well-educated to accept anything less than identity as a full person, yet unable to achieve that identity either in the home, which is now only partially fulfilling or in the man's world to which she is denied access. The difference between what her limited roles permit her to be, and what she knows inside she could be, is the source of her incipient rage.

It can be frustrating to be a woman in a male dominated society—yes, even at Yale, traditionally dominated by men. Yet, despite what radical feminists say, not all men are oppressors—there are those who would like to realize equality. In many ways CHAPS has confused a political issue with sexuality.

The goal of feminism is to create a society in which each person is able to reach his or her fullest potential. In the past, many women surrendered their freedom in exchange for comfort. Now each must work to create a balance, the freedom to choose her life style. Feminists can enjoy married life and have children. But the feminist understands that she alone is responsible for her happiness and well being. She knows that she cannot look for a man to take care of her.

Feminists believe women should strive to attain their full potential which may surpass the level of contribution dictated by traditional social roles. Men created these roles; and as long as men continue to maintain them, they are, from the feminist point of view, oppressors. Simone de Beauvoir explained this feeling in a 1977 interview with *Ms.* magazine,

> I have become more or less used to living a world where men are what they are; oppressors...I have learned how deep and widespread oppression is! There are women who are actually imprisoned in their homes.

It is simple to say that the solution lies in men getting to know women as people and understanding that women's goals are not so different from theirs. However, this understanding is what the feminist movement has attempted to bring about for years. Although conditions have improved, it has been a constant fight and it shows every sign of getting more difficult. The recent ruling, now stayed by the Supreme Court, that Congress unconstitutionally extended the ratification period for the Equal Rights Amendment, and that states had a right to rescind their previous approval—which could have administered the *coup de grace* to the ERA—is only one example of the obstacles that confront the women's movement.

Factionalism in the movement

The feminist movement, like all revolutionary movements, has a radical faction. In the late sixties there were groups like Women's International Terrorist Conspiracy from Hell (WITCH) which felt that "women's freedom will only come about through social revolution—destruction of the family, private property

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'The women's struggle is necessary: there are blatant and at times alarming inequalities between the sexes.'

and the nation-state." In the early seventies there was the Society for Cutting Up Men (SCUM). Today there is CHAPS. Radical feminists refuse to suppress their rage. As Larson wrote, "Rage is not impulsive; it appears as openly aggressive behavior only when such behavior is in one way or another made acceptable."

Radical feminist organizations legitimize rage because they allow women of similar views to come together and collectively act on their hostile feelings. In the case of CHAPS, this legitimized rage has engendered separatism. Separatists wish to isolate themselves from men if not (as would seem to be ideal) physically, then at least mentally. One CHAPS member wrote,

> My separatism is a state of mind...in my heart and in my head I am fully womon *(sic)* identified. I give them none of my energy...I spend all of my self-directed time with womyn*(sic)*.

Radical feminism, particularly separatism, is in direct conflict with the general movement. A separatist not only separates herself from men, but also from the 99% of the female population. This separation does little to further the causes of the feminist movement. Separatism is no solution, and perhaps only distorted perceptions would allow one even to consider it!

Distorted perceptions

A case study in distorted perceptions is the wealth of incorrect statistical information in the "Separatism" article. CHAPS stated that a "womon *(sic)* is battered every 18 seconds..." This statistic is wrong. It has been incorrectly derived, or fabricated, and is useless. Where might CHAPS have gotten this number? Perhaps from the FBI's Uniform Crime Clock which shows that someone is assaulted every 48 seconds. Someone, not a woman, not a man, but someone. There is no way of finding out the sex of the victim. The FBI does not keep statistics by victim but by type and number of offender and the total number of victims is less than the number of women that CHAPS claims have been assaulted. The FBI is the only government organization that keeps national crime statisitcs. And the FBI, according to Richard Schwein, the Assistant Chief of the Uniform Crime Report, knows of no one who keeps national statistics by victim. There is violence against women (and men)—but CHAPS distorts its extent and severity.

Since CHAPS is at an isolated end of the spectrum, it is little wonder that it could not propose an acceptable solution to problems that plague the interaction between men and women. The CHAPS statement that, "There is no such thing as a non-oppressive heterosexual relationship," implies that a non-oppressive relationship may only be found in a homosexual-lesbian relationship. This, of course, is a lie. The presentation of lesbianism as complete solace from the pressures of male-dominated society is a false one. De Beauvoir said, "in itself homosexuality is as limiting as heterosexuality..." In trying to use lesbianism as a political strategy, CHAPS members are embracing the ways of the oppressor: from the feminist point of view, a woman should be able to love anyone without guilt or restraint. True feminism has little to do with sexual preference.

It is important to remember de Beauvoir's warning, "...one must not go too far...by saying that women have special links with the earth, the moon etcetera... A woman has no special value *a priori* because she is a woman." Thus, despite the frequent radical assertion to the contrary, a woman's capacity for violence is as great as a man's if they are subject to the same conditioning. (However, young boys and girls are conditioned quite differently from a very early age.)

CHAPS in context

Women have a distance to go before all of the inequities that CHAPS exaggerate are erased. Women who seek employment outside the home are forced to face discrimination more directly than their counterparts who work within the home. Many Yale women are anxious to begin a career before they marry and/or begin families. Many men feel threatened when they find that women, who share their aspirations, are able to compete on an increasingly even level. And though most Yale men have a better than average exposure to women who have gone beyond their traditional role, many still say that Yale women are castrating because they are aggressive and determined.

Here at Yale, women have access to every academic resource; socially the double standard still exists. Despite men saying that they have no objection to having a woman ask them out, if the actual phone call is made the woman becomes less desirable than if the man had had to pursue her. Inequalities persist. While there is much to criticize in "Separatism," it at least caused people to recognize that problems exist.

Radical articles serve another purpose as well; the extremity of radical opinion causes the middle ground, the position of compromise, to shift. Radical politics can be used to move groups at the opposite ends of the spectrum to meet somewhere in the middle. For blacks in the sixties, it was the militant threat of violence that often made gains possible. But, if CHAPS in rejecting the "patriarchy" and opting for separatism makes no demands, how should the Yale community respond to them?

Impractical demands

There is not much to be done with or about them. If radical feminists like CHAPS do not want to find a solution with men, within the "patriarchy," there is

Continued on page 17

Reagan's Regulatory Hit and Run

Jonathan C. Rauch

Over the gateway to the Reagan Administration are inscribed the words: "Consumers—go away." Over the past decade buyers have increasingly looked to the government to protect them from shoddy quality and dangerous defects, and the government has on the whole been responsive. But the message now is different. No one, says the Reagan Administration, and least of all the government, can protect consumers more effectively than they can protect themselves. So the Administration is starving the Consumer Product Safety Commission, established only eight years ago and still the government's smallest independent agency, and is saying that distributing consumer information about energy conservation is an "inappropriate role" for government involvement.

One can respect the Administration's commitment to the ideal of a government that leaves people alone. One can respect its commitment to a free market. But the Administration's unwillingness to recognize a genuine market failure, its readiness to monkey around with the facts in the name of objectivity, its bureaucratic arm-twisting—all those are harder to come to terms with. The problem of passive restraints is a case in point.

Consumer beware?

When a consumer buys a faulty product there are a number of things he can do about it. He can complain to the company and demand a replacement, he can sue if he has sustained loss or injury, and he can spread the word to others who might make the same mistake. That is not an impotent arsenal by a long shot, and most manufacturers do their best to maintain safety and quality most of the time.

But auto safety is one of those areas—indeed, the classic area—where the private arsenal isn't enough. If your Pinto has the galling habit of exploding, you can't very well put it out of commission and replace it, and you can't demand an exchange; you probably won't be satisfied to know that you can sue should your car go up in flames. Only the government, either administratively or through the courts, can order a recall. And the size of the auto companies makes them more or less invulnerable to the attacks of private citizens.

Above all, activists can take action after the fact, but they are helpless to prevent hazards from developing. President Reagan may be right to frown upon the government's telling Cuisinart how to make its blenders, but defective Cuisinarts rarely kill people. In the automotive industry, defects are special, because they're deadly. Prevention is the only approach that really works.

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Facts and figures

About 50,000 people are killed in cars every year. That figure is likely to go up dramatically as small cars replace large ones on the road. The vast majority of those killed were sitting in the front seat when they died; a large proportion of them—just how many is hard to say—could have been saved by either of two devices: the seatbelt or the airbag. Seatbelts, which reduce chances of death 49 percent and of injury 66 percent, have been required in cars for over a decade now. The problem is that people don't wear them—the use rate hovers around ten percent (11.4 percent at the moment) and has defied all attempts to raise it. In many respects the ideal alternative is the airbag, which inflates in a collision to form a cushion for front seat occupants. Airbags are, if anything, more effective than belts.

So why call in Big Brother? conservatives ask. They point out that if people wanted airbags they would buy them: a view which, as far as it goes, is absolutely correct. People are unquestionably willing to pay for safe cars, Ford's and now Chrysler's Lee "Safety Doesn't Sell" Iacocca to the contrary. In 1956 Ford opened a safety campaign which advertised Ford's "Life Guard Design" and offered belts and padded dashes as options; demand for the package proved unexpectedly strong, and the campaign was a success.

That's where economic rationality broke down. For reasons that remain mysterious, Ford withdrew the package and—despite the demand—nothing like it has surfaced since. Ralph Nader's Center for Auto Safety says that Ford was persuaded by GM that the campaign would call attention to the dangerousness of cars generally, and, in fact, only months later Congress opened its first hearings ever on auto safety. At that point, the Big Three dug in. They were determined not to be pushed around, and it was toward safety that they were being pushed.

There is little doubt that today people would buy airbags—but just try to get one. Of the imports only Mercedes will sell you one, and no domestic maker offers airbags at all. To a large extent, that's because competitive forces tend to keep airbags off the mass market. Airbags are ready at hand for every automaker in the world; they don't become economical until they are made in great numbers, when the price drops from around $800 to around $200. Any company that decided to install airbags and make them affordable would have to put them in a large number of cars, at considerable risk. If the option failed, the company that offered it could face significant losses; if it succeeded, the company would still have borne the start-up costs for a sales advantage that could last at most two seasons.

To make matters worse, non-economic concerns—political and ideological ones—are almost cer-

'If your Pinto has the galling habit of exploding, you can't very well put it out of commission and replace it.'

tainly involved. According to William Nordhaus, Professor of Economics here and a former member of the Council of Economic Advisors, passive restraints generally and airbags specifically "have really taken on a symbolic importance to the automobile companies.... It symbolizes for them all the regulation they feel they are suffering under, and I think they feel that if they can beat this one, maybe the tide will have turned for them and they can beat back some other ones."

A bureaucracy fights back

When he entered office in 1977, Transportation Secretary Brock Adams decided that enough was enough. He and Joan Claybrook, then Administrator of the National Highway Traffic Safety Administration (NHTSA), the agency responsible for auto safety, promulgated Motor Vehicle Safety Standard 208, the passive restraint standard. It required that large cars (then predominant) be equipped with passive restraints—devices that protect the passenger whether he does anything or not—by 1980. Mid-sized and small models were to follow over the next two years.

The industry moaned for a while and then got to work. Adams and Claybrook, meanwhile, went out of their way to see that problems for the auto companies were minimized. First, they concocted a performance, rather than a design, standard. In other words, they specified the capabilities that passive restraints were to have—what kind of crash effectiveness and so on—and left it up to manufacturers to design their own systems. Second, Claybrook later granted Detroit, which alone built large cars, a year's delay, and made the standard effective in 1981.

Detroit used the time to work on its restraint systems. Deciding that airbags were too expensive, the Big Three abandoned them for what are called "passive" or "automatic" belts. Those are seat belts which wrap themselves around you as you sit down and close the car door; they are more obtrusive than airbags but less expensive. Foreign manufacturers followed suit and, indeed, took the lead: Volkswagen has successfully offered passive belts as an option with the Rabbit since 1975. Forty-five percent of all Rabbit buyers select the option.

But the automakers had a better idea. At the last minute, Chrysler, afraid (it said) that the public would reject passive belts, gave its belt design a new twist. The Chrysler belt unbuckles in the middle, like a conventional seat belt, and may be conveniently stowed by the door for as long as you please. A passive belt that you can disconnect forever in a matter of seconds? Well, there was nothing in the standard about that. Ford and GM instantly followed Chrysler's lead, afraid otherwise of losing customers to Chrysler's appealing new design. Others, however, suspected additional motives: "It's a little more than a frustration of the law," said a spokesman for Allstate. "They want Standard 208 killed."

To regulate or not?

We all know that the domestic auto industry is in trouble. Why? If you ask Representative Al Swift, D-Wash., "There's been a pattern in Detroit of having to be dragged kicking and screaming into everything—fuel economy, small cars. If Detroit had listened to the government, it wouldn't be in as big a mess as it is now." But if you ask the Reagan Administration, you get a different answer: government regulation.

The Reagan Administration says that protecting passengers is a legitimate function for government, and that putting safer cars on the road is something the government should do. The Transportation Department says that the question is one of efficiency, not ideology, and that the problem is not the concept of passive restraints but their high costs. Those are the grounds on which it has junked the passive restraint standard.

One of the first acts of Vice President George Bush's Task Force on Regulatory Relief was to propose relieving the auto industry from "burdensome" regulations.



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And, as one of his first acts in office, NHTSA Administrator Raymond A. Peck, Jr., delayed implementation of the restraint standard another year, thereby leaving passive belts out of the large cars that had been slated to receive them.

NHTSA claimed that it was holding up the standard in order to save the industry money (which was undoubtedly true); but in fact the move was predicted to save only $30 million in an industry where GM alone grosses $9 million an hour. Department insiders said that what the Administration really wanted was time to choose between several more drastic alternatives—to choose, in fact, whether to rescind the standard altogether.

So it was to no one's very great surprise that NHTSA's Peck announced, on October 23, that Standard 208 is to be taken off the books. For auto safety advocates it's back to square one. For Detroit it's the successful culmination of a long campaign of delay and obfuscation. And any way you look at it, it means considerable loss of life.

The Administration's rationale is uniquely interesting. It seems that the standard had to be scrapped because it would have been ineffective. Why would it have been ineffective? Because the belt design Chrysler had developed wasn't very good. Indeed Detroit's belt would be ineffective; one unhappy official at NHTSA complained privately that he "would be surprised if you got as good usage with this system as with the conventional one. It is a miserable, miserable system." Rep. Swift took a look at Detroit's design and remarked, "If I didn't want people to want seat belts, I think I would design something like that." But surely the obvious step is to remove the loophole, not the regulation. The impression that Washington and Detroit are exchanging winks is hard to dismiss.

An Executive Order

Then there is the question whether the Reagan Administration is being true to the doctrines that it proclaims. Only days after moving into the Oval Office, President Reagan signed an Executive Order which pronounced that regulatory decisions were to be made henceforth on a cost-benefit basis. Other criteria were to be taken into account, but regulations which cost more than they saved were to be accepted only under the most exceptional circumstances. The order was touted as a symbol of the Administration's commitment to intelligent, pragmatic deregulation. Above all, it was meant to provide some sort of objective limit to heavy-handed bureaucratic rulemaking.

It thus became clear from the start that the key issue in the debate over passive restraints was that of cost versus benefit; if the standard saved money it would be retained, and if it cost money it would be dropped. It also became clear that the Administration was not above stacking the deck after it had announced its own rules.

The clearest example is the decision, made this past summer, to delay implementation of the passive restraint standard for large cars. NHTSA began in February estimating, for example, that each passive belt would cost betwen $50 and $70. By April, when it had prepared its final analysis, the Department's figure had suddenly jumped to $108. Where had the new figure come from? It was an average of estimates submitted by the Big Three. The auto companies had a "very strong incentive" to engage in "strategic" cost estimates, Nordhaus pointed out: "The same is well understood by most agencies, and I am puzzled why NHTSA seems to have forgotten the rules."

But that was just the beginning. In order to learn how much money the standard might save, the Department had to calculate the number of deaths and injuries passive belts would prevent, with social costs of death and injury figured at between $400,000 and $600,000. That's easy, given three things: the number of serious accidents per year, the effectiveness of belts in use, and the use rate for passive belts.

It's number three that's tricky. The Department cast about for a figure, and what it came up with was this: in cars now equipped with passive belts, usage is about double that for cars with manual belts—70 percent versus 31 percent in experimental Chevettes, for examples. So the Department doubled the present use rate and came up with a minimum passive belt usage rate, for large cars, of 14 percent (drivers of big cars wear their seat belts only seven percent of the time). The standard would become cost-effective only at 28 percent use, four times the current rate. Since it seemed unlikely (NHTSA said) that the use rate would quadruple, the standard would not save money.

But the Insurance Institute for Highway Safety, an information and research center underwritten by auto insurers, hired Yale's Nordhaus to look more closely. He found what he said was a glaring problem. Since the difference between manual and automatic belt use was 39 percent, what was supposed to have been done, and what conventionally was done, was simple addition: current use plus the increment, for a total belt use rate of about 46 percent. The standard easily made up for the money it cost.

Neither side was exactly disinterested; still, there is plenty of reason to suppose that the Department has been playing fast and loose with its statistics. Peck insists that his agency's study was objective, and that NHTSA examined the issue with an open mind. But no less an authority than James C. Miller, then Administrator of the Office of Management and Budget's Office of Information and Regulatory Affairs, a key agency in Administration decisions on regulatory policy, said he "made no bones" about the fact that he and Transportation Secretary Drew Lewis and Office of Management and Budget (OMB) Director David Stockman "thought it was appropriate to delay the standard. The issue was discussed in Cabinet meetings, sometimes with the President there, and so I don't think that it should come as many surprise that they"—NHTSA—"took action expeditiously."

There's nothing new in the fact that when the White

House says "frog" the bureaucracies jump—things would hardly function otherwise. But it's quite another matter to have an Administration that makes a point of its objectivity and its adherence to cost-benefit standards while at the same time gunning for unpopular regulations.

The *New York Times* reported in October that in scrapping the passive restraint standard Peck acted against the unanimous advice of his staff; and that staff itself had been put under considerable pressure to make its findings conform to the Reaganite view. Rhodes Stephenson, until April NHTSA's Associate Administrator for Research and Development, said that the new Administration "came in with this standard very high on their list of things to get rid of. It certainly looked to me as if their minds were made up."

Another NHTSA official discounted the notion that the studies which he and his colleagues produced under the Reagan Administration were objective. Was direct pressure being applied? "Let me put it this way: do you call it direct pressure when you have three kids to feed and there's a sword hanging over your head by a very, very thin thread?"

A prediction come true

Joan Claybrook, Carter's NHTSA Administrator, made this prediction a few months ago: "I think the White House and OMB want to get rid of the standard, and I think that Ray Peck is not going to oppose them." She was right. Indeed, Nader and others say that Peck himself became a backer of airbags when he saw photographs of an utterly demolished car and learned that the two octogenarians in it had escaped unharmed, thanks to airbags they hadn't known were there. But reportedly when Peck said as much, Presidential Advisor Edwin Meese gave him a quick warning not to raise the matter again.

Just why the Administration should put passive restraints on the hit list remains unclear. We do know, though, that consumerist regulation is not something that this Administration particularly cares about, and that Detroit has applied intense pressure to be rid of passive restraints. The irony is that, on the whole, the standard would have had a comparatively small effect on the auto industry: the rule would have applied to foreign as well as domestic manufacturers, and the belts themselves were cheap.

Such cases, anyway, have taught us what to expect of the Reagan Administration: regulatory dive-bombing and statistical hanky-panky under the guise of objectivity; a drive to get the government off business's back even when the market doesn't work, leaving consumers to foot the bill. With the Justice Department's anti-trust division making a policy of sitting on its hands, the EPA redefining pollution, and regulations like standards for passive restraints and bumpers falling under the axe, we at least get a clear view of Reaganite consumerism: businesses doing business their way, and not their customers' way.•

Separatism: Feminism Gone Wrong

Continued from page 13

little that the surrounding community can do to quell their rage except to work to change existing social problems, which would leave separatists with fewer complaints—but probably would not change their minds. Admittedly, CHAPS members must have a difficult time: by their own choice they have isolated themselves from mainstream society. For its part, society does not want to recognize these people as a part of itself. These two attitudes further complicate the struggle for resolution of radical feminist issues: no bridge of understanding can be built when neither party wants to reach the other side.

Working together

Solutions to the problems that face men and women today will only come about by men and women working together. Even one CHAPS member admitted that separatism is "a temporary response. Ultimately I hope the boys get their act together on their own, so we can all work together to change the world..." The solution will begin when young boys are instilled with a respect for all, male and female.•



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An Antidote to Voodoo Economics

Frank Luyster

Many critics have found flaws with the Reagan tax cut, and yet few of these critics are able to provide an alternative tax program. In this article, I will present arguments as to why such an alternative is necessary. I will also specify taxes which can accomplish important objectives such as reducing oil consumption, raising output and employment, reducing interest rates, and raising productivity.

President Reagan has promised that his tax program will result in similar benefits. The problem with his tax cut is that it is incapable, even on theoretical grounds, of achieving such benefits. As David Stockman conceded recently in an article by William Greider in the *Atlantic Monthly,* the whole Reagan economic program "is premised on faith." Essentially, the hope of supply-side economists is that "dramatic action by the President, especially the commitment to a three-year reduction in the income tax, coupled with tight monetary control, would signal investors that a new era was dawning, that the growth of the government would be displaced by the growth of the private sector." Supposedly, the optimism engendered by the President's dramatic action would then cause an increase in investment, a bull market in stocks, and an increase in output and employment.

Incentives change behavior

By contrast, the tax program advocated here is premised on the belief that changes in economic behavior may only be effected through changes in incentives. An understanding of how incentives could be used to achieve limited but realistic goals will allow society to devise an efficient but compassionate tax code. Such a code could be rendered as progressive as the society desires except in those crucial areas where efficiency is of paramount importance. What follows is a brief description of the ways in which the tax system affects individual behavior, and also a few ideas on how the tax system might be used to improve economic performance.

Taxes, of course, may be imposed on activities which are harmful to the national welfare. For example, taxes are imposed on cigarettes and alchohol. Such taxes lower the consumption of these items, and as a result the burden of such taxes may be less than the revenue collected. If the current tax on cigarettes lowers the probability of lung cancer, it may, let us say, reduce the medical expenses of the U.S. by $200 million. That $200 million may be subtracted from the burden imposed by the cigarette tax to derive its actual burden.

This example suggests the possibility that if activities which are harmful to the country are taxed, the ratio of the burden of taxes to the revenue they raise could be minimized. Such taxes would be efficient.

By this standard, a tax on imported oil would be efficient. The Arabs have priced their oil at about $35 per barrel because they know that substitutes for oil become economically feasible at about $45 to $50 per barrel. They have felt comfortable in their brazen assertion of monopoly power because the West lacks the courage to resort to retaliatory customs barriers. International trade theory suggests that a good way to reduce the outflow of money to OPEC, now about two percent of GNP each year, is to tax oil imports. The Cowles Foundation at Yale has developed an optimal tariff pricing model which suggests that the optimal oil tax would be a rate of 50 percent, or $18 per barrel. This tax would yield about $40 billion per year.

An oil tax would yield three economic benefits: first, it would stimulate the development of alternatives to oil, thereby easing our transition into oil imports; second, it would reduce the outflow of money to the Arabs, leaving more money available for the purchase of American-made products; and third, it would reduce the demand for oil, thus forcing the Arabs to maintain a policy of price moderation. In addition, the tax would yield the non-economic benefit of protecting the U.S. from oil boycotts and other attempts of Arab financiers to influence U.S. politics and policy.

Stopping salary inflation efficiently

Another efficient tax would be a tax on wage-rate inflation, that is, a tax-based incomes policy. For example, a tax-based incomes policy might tax corporations 75 percent of each dollar of salary inflation above a certain limit. If a corporation increased salaries by 7 percent and the limit was at 5 percent, the corporation would be charged 75 percent of the difference, or 1.5 percent of all labor compensation. Because of the disincentive to salary inflation that would result from a tax-based incomes policy, salaries would increase more slowly than they otherwise would.

Salary inflation harms the economy because, as the major component of business costs, it reduces the demand for products by raising prices. Because of the current monetary targets of the Federal Reserve, the nation's level of spending will increase by a fixed percentage each year. Currently, this percentage is about 9 percent. If prices increase by 9 percent, the increase in spending will be completely absorbed with no increase in output. Lower levels of price inflation will permit some increase in output. For example, if prices could increase 7 percent per year as a result of imposing a tax-based incomes policy, output could expand by 2 percent per year.

A tax-based incomes policy could therefore raise money for the Treasury at the same time that it causes a

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'Due to the recent influx of foreign capital into the US, the average person cannot today earn a positive real rate of return.

reduction in inflation and an increase in output. The implementation of such a policy could raise from $10 billion to $100 billion for the Treasury, while raising GNP by roughly the same amount.

Taxation's indirect effects

In addition to the direct effects of taxes on individual behavior, they have an indirect effect on research and development expenditures, productivity, and on the flow of funds in the international capital markets. Because of a number of factors related to taxation, the rate of saving in the U.S. is currently about half of the rate of saving in Japan. As a result, the stock market is stagnant, and bonds sell at low prices; the cost of capital is high, and businesses are unable to identify new products or ways of improving productivity which will yield them a return higher than their capital costs. This, roughly speaking, is an explanation of why many of the recent breakthroughs in applying science to the production of consumer goods have taken place in Japan and not in the U.S. The U.S. does not save enough to let corporations spend discretionary money on developing "Walkman" sound systems, or on robotics. Despite the U.S.'s technological sophistication, we have fewer robots installed than in Japan, a country with half our population.

Also, the low rate of saving is responsible in large part for the recent influx of foreign capital into the U.S. The high interest rates induced by such a low rate of savings make foreign investment in the U.S. an attractive proposition. For example, it is not commonly known that in recent years over half of the U.S. government securities marketed by the Treasury have been sold to OPEC nations.

The secular savings rate decline

What is frightening about such flows of capital into the U.S. is that the average person cannot today earn a positive real rate of return on most assets. Take bonds, for example. A 14 percent rate of return on bonds may be only an 8 percent return after taxes. One must then subtract the rate of inflation, which is about 9 percent. This leaves the average man with a loss per year of 1 percent in real terms—whereas foreign investors are not required to pay U.S. income taxes and therefore would net the full 14 percent or 5 percent per year in real terms.

The difference between the real rate of return to foreigners and to citizens in the U.S. reflects a subsidy to foreign investment, a subsidy which is proportional to the size of foreign investment in the U.S. Given that the size of direct and indirect foreign investment in the U.S. is on the order of $400 billion or so, it follows that each year we subsidize foreign investors to the tune of $24 billion.

Four factors seem responsible for the gradual reduction in the American rate of saving over the past few decades. First, the Social Security system has weakened the need for retirement savings. Unfortunately, however, since it taxes young workers at a level sufficient to pay only for current retirement benefits, the system has saved no assets. It is a pay-as-you-go method of finance. Yet, because of the reduced need for retirement savings, some of the assets formerly held by individuals to provide for their retirement years have been liquidated. Economists have estimated that the enactment of the pay-as-you-go method of finance has reduced the level of savings between $500 billion and $2,000 billion, and thereby reduced the productivity of the American worker by between 2 to 15 percent.

Second, the taxes on interest, dividends, and capital gains apply to all such income, regardless of the rate of inflation. Thus, when inflation rates rise, as they have in the 1970s, the effective rate of taxation on savings also rises. For example, consider the difference in taxes paid on $1000 of savings in bonds in the 1950s and in the 1970s. Assuming that the real rate of interest was fixed at 4 percent per year and that the rates of inflation in the two decades were 1 percent and 10 percent respectively, one obtains bond coupon rates of 5 and 14 percent respectively. If marginal tax rates had been constant, the tax on that $1000 of savings would thus be almost tripled; tax payments would have increased by a ratio of 14 to 5, or 2.8 times. Actually, marginal tax rates on the interest income of the average investor have declined somewhat, from 60% to 40%. Even so, the taxes paid in the 1950s would be about $30, as opposed to almost $60 in the 1970s. In all probability, this increase in tax payments per dollar of savings has reduced the level of savings by between 4 and 16 percent, or from $300 billion to $1200 billion. Again, because declines in the level of savings reduce research and development spending and curtail plans for capital expenditures, this reduction in savings will mean a productivity loss of 1 to 8 percent.

Third, since 1962, banks have been restricted by Regulation Q of the Federal Reserve to paying not more than a certain rate of interest on savings accounts, usually about 5 percent. This rate of return will yield a loss of about 4 percent per year in real terms *even without taxation.* And yet, the majority of small savers must save through savings accounts; they do not have enough money or expertise to speculate in stocks and bonds.

Fourth, the Federal Government has continued to run sizable deficits, as a result of which the ratio of the federal debt to the GNP has remained at a constant, and fairly high level. In all probability, such debt, and in fact all financial obligations of the Federal Government, reduce the level of savings available to the private sector. This is because, as with Social Security, each

dollar the government owes or is obligated to pay to individuals reduces the need of such individuals to hold private savings. For example, because banks and individuals hold U.S. securities equal in value to about one quarter of the GNP, or $700 billion, they do not seek other kinds of assets, for example, mortgages and corporate stocks.

Obviously, no single tax proposal could completely resolve the problems mentioned above. But two major changes in the tax code could help to reduce the negative effects of federal activity on the rate of savings. First, the tax code should be rewritten so that it does not tax interest, dividends, and capital gains as such, nor should it permit the deduction of interest payments from adjusted gross income. Rather, it should tax the market value of an individual's wealth. Unlike the current income tax, a wealth tax would not be influenced by changes in the rate of inflation. Also, the tax could be made progressive so that only the truly wealthy would be obligated to pay. Taxes on very wealthy individuals have only a limited effect on the rate of saving because such individuals are already consuming at close to their maximum rate. The tax might apply only to those with a wealth, say, of over $500,000. The goal of this kind of a wealth tax would clearly be to reduce the inequality of the distribution of wealth. Because the average person would not be taxed, he would choose a higher rate of saving than that for which he now budgets.

Second, the Federal Government should require the Social Security Administration to become fully funded, that is, to accumulate assets equal in value to the sum of its current obligations. In addition, a trust fund should be established in the name of the American people which would hold assets equal in value to the Federal debt. These assets would offset the negative effect of the Federal Government's financial obligations on the level of savings available to the private sector. While not perfect, this policy is probably the best we can do. In the absence of further information on what is the optimal level of savings, the best society can hope for is to neutralize the damage done to the private sector by the government's decision to absorb the supply of private savings by issuing debt or other financial obligations.

To accomplish this goal, a major increase in taxes will need to be endured for half a generation. For example, the goal could be accomplished through a tax increase of $250 billion; 25 years would then be required for the goal to be achieved. (Incidentally, had the Reagan tax cut not been enacted, the U.S. could achieve the same goal by raising taxes only $150 billion.)

Social costs reflected

A rough calculation of the sources of income provided by the taxes already suggested—an oil tax, tax-based incomes policy, and a wealth tax instead of taxes on capital—reveals that over 25 years these taxes would yield about 40 percent of the needed savings. (It was assumed that the tax-based incomes policy would be phased out after 5 years.) Such a tax would be efficient in that it would not distort economic activity. It would raise the necessary income if imposed as a payroll tax at a rate of 6 percent on all earned income. Although this tax might be somewhat regressive, it would be fair, in my opinion, because all income earned from work would be taxed proportionally. Of course, as long as interest income, dividends, and capital gains were not taxed, the form of the tax on income will not affect efficiency substantially. Society could opt for a highly progressive tax on earned income without reducing productivity significantly.

The tax changes suggested in this essay may be thought to place an excessive burden on the American taxpayer. This view is completely incorrect. The specific taxes mentioned, the oil tax, tax-based incomes policy, and wealth tax, would merely be a correction of economic incentives to reflect the true social cost of certain activities. For example, the consumption of imported oil is harmful to the United States for a variety of reasons. By taxing imported oil, the U.S. would merely be charging the consumers of imported oil a fee for the damage or cost to society brought about by such consumption.

The remaining taxes necessary to accumulate federal assets for the next 25 years would also not be a burden. For, as soon as the Federal Government invested the money collected from the new taxes, that money would become available for people to spend. The money could be used to purchase corporate bonds. As a result, businesses would be able to spend on building new factories and new research facilities. The money could also be used to invest in new home mortgages. The new supply of savings would drive down interst rates, making housing affordable. In short, the major increase in taxes necessary to accumulate federal assets will not result in a major reduction in spending. Although consumption might fall slightly in the short term, in the long run federal asset accumulation will improve the housing market, increase investment in new plant and equipment, and increase corporate spending on research and development. Productivity will increase, national wealth will grow, and society will benefit.•

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Letter: On Workplace Democracy

To the Editor:

I must take issue with David Chappell's summary of the Rushton Mining Company's experiment in worker participation which appeared in his article "Extending Democracy to the Workplace—and Beyond." Mr. Chappell appears to have drawn his account from Daniel Zwerdling's *Workplace Democracy: A Guide to Workplace Ownership, Participation, and Self-Management Experiments in the United States and Europe.* Zwerdling is quoted in the article, though his name is not mentioned. He is "one analyst" who said that, prior to implementation of the program, each shift of miners would "leave machinery and supplies in a mess to thwart the next shift's production" (*Workplace Democracy, p. 34).*

Unfortunately, in addition to failing to cite his sources, Mr. Chappell neglects to read them. He concludes that workers started to fix broken machinery themselves because they "began to identify with the success of the company," while Zwerdling suggests that the miners did so more from a feeling of personal pride in their work. Mr. Chappell contends that the experiment led to "both an increase in productivity and a decrease in accidents." He certainly seems to have had access to more definitive information than did the experts studying the project. Statistics were contradictory. When examined as a whole, they did not indicate any significant decline in costs or accidents (or absenteeism). Because safety and production did not decrease while worker satisfaction rose, Zwerdling considers the experiment a success (*Workplace Democracy,* pp. 35-36).

Mr. Chappell also neglects to mention that the Rushton miners themselves rejected the experiment. Management first established the projects in only one section of the mine and later extended it to a second division. Miners not included in the experiment became envious. Not only did the participants receive special attention and privileges, each member of the experimental sections received top union pay, regardless of skill level or seniority. It appears that because of these petty jealousies the miners who were not involved in the experiment voted against extending the program throughout the mine.

This experience suggests that, contrary to Mr. Chappell's assertion, democracy does *not* adapt "quite readily" to the workplace. Management, union, and workers must be committed to industrial democracy, must work together to design a program appropriate to the particular factory, firm, and industry, and must fully understand the limitations of worker participation. Workplace democracy is not a panacea; it does not automatically increase "production, quality, and safety" and decrease "turnover, absenteeism,...tardiness" and Marxist alienation. The experts disagree on whether (or to what degree) even supposedly successful experiments achieve these results. I concur with Mr. Chappell that workplace democracy is highly desirable for many reasons, both social and economic. Well-designed programs can simultaneously achieve the seemingly contradictory objectives of increasing worker satisfaction by reducing alienation and raising profits. But if worker participation is to become the norm in American industry, planners must be fully aware of its shortcomings as well as its virtues.

Theresa A. Hamacher '82

David Chappell replies:

Ms. Hamacher's attacks on my reporting style imply a charge of plagarism. She is correct that I relied on Zwerdling, and sources in his bibliography, for information on Rushton. Surely that is no crime. In a scholarly paper I would have footnoted my sources but explicit documentation, my editor informed me, was neither required nor necessarily desirable in a more popular journal such as the *YPM.* I made no attempt to represent my research as original; the information in quotations obviously came from somewhere, just as the information from Frederick Taylor, Henry Ford, "one miner," "one manager" and Alfred E. Smith came from unnamed sources. Ms. Hamacher's proof that I did not make the story up myself strikes me as gratuitous.

As for the quotation tag "one analyst," I felt the name "Zwerdling" and three or four lines to explain who he was and why he was important, without which "Zwerdling"would have been as meaningless as "one analyst" were more expendable than other candidates for the wastebasket. I cut his name from my final draft, along with important substantive information Ms. Hamacher asserts I neglected, in order to squeeze what was left of the essentials into the alotted space.

Her next charge, that "Mr. Chappell neglects to read" the source from which I plagerized (note the paradox in that charge) is slightly more well-founded. Ms. Hamacher accurately notes that statistics were contradictory and then insists that I am incorrect in my contention that productivity increased. Zwerdling did write that the experiment "did not...boost productivity" but he hedges: "Some sets of statistics suggest that costs in one of the autonomous sections dropped dramatically" although "other sets of statistics show that there was not much difference" *(Workplace Democracy* p. 35). Zwerdling does not claim productivity increased. Nor does he prove the reverse. However, I did overstate my case, and I apologize.

Still, there are many indices of productivity. Whether the ratio of coal output to cost stayed the same or increased, one must also consider that all workers in the

"autonomous" section received top union pay regardless of seniority or position. Hence, if the ratio of output to *cost* did not change, the ratio of output to man-hours must have increased. (Zwerdling, unfortunately does not specify how productivity was measured). One should also note that the workers in the experimental section often spent full days at full pay outside the mine in classes and discussion groups. Management found it worthwhile to pay them though they were being, on those days, nonproductive. This might have been done in the hope of improved overall productivity of in the hope of averting future strikes—whose affect on production costs cannot be ignored.

My main point about Rushton and the other experiments was that the measurements established by the profiteers of workplace totalitarianism are not the proper criteria to use in evaluating attempts to dissolve their tyranny. "Productivity," measured as company's cost versus worker's output, is not of primary importance. Even if "productivity" by this measure had decreased at Rushton, that experience would not necessarily suggest that, "democracy does not 'adapt quite readily' to the workplace.'" The short life (two years) of democratic reforms at Rushton aside, all four experiments described in my article, and many others in the US and abroad, show that democracy often succeeds in more ways than are reflected in company earnings.

The Rushton experiment showed many signs of success before the workers decided to end it—by a four vote majority composed, Zwerdling found, mostly of those who had not participated in the experiment.

Often, experiments fail not because they institute democracy *per se* but because they do not institute it whole-heartedly. Rushton is a case in point. According to Zwerdling, "management and union officials and the consultants say they can trace the collapse of the project to the way they launched it at the beginning" (*Workplace Democracy* p. 36). The experiment began in only one section of the mine. Had more workers participated from the start, the suspicion and envy that brought it down might have been averted. •

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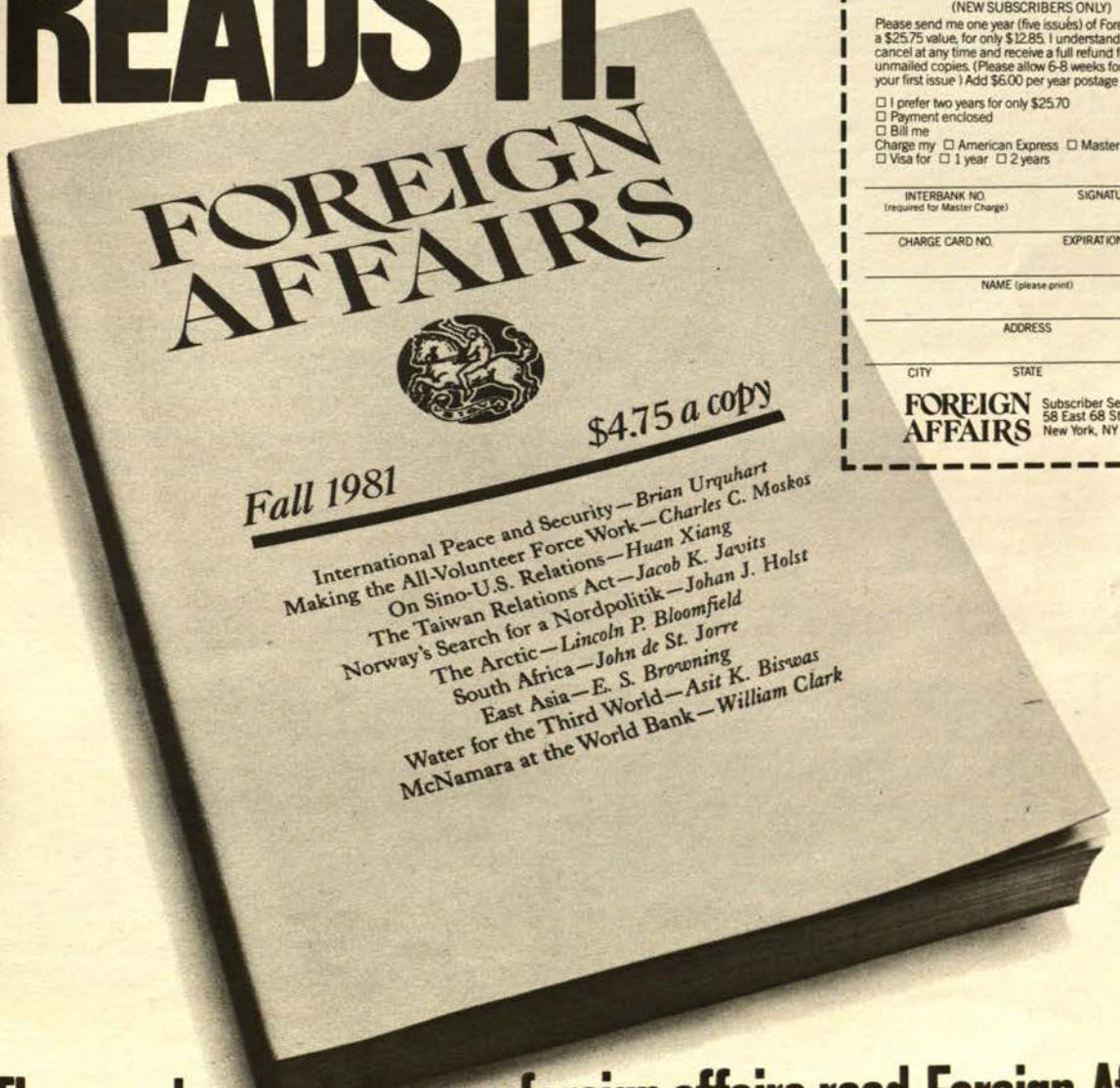
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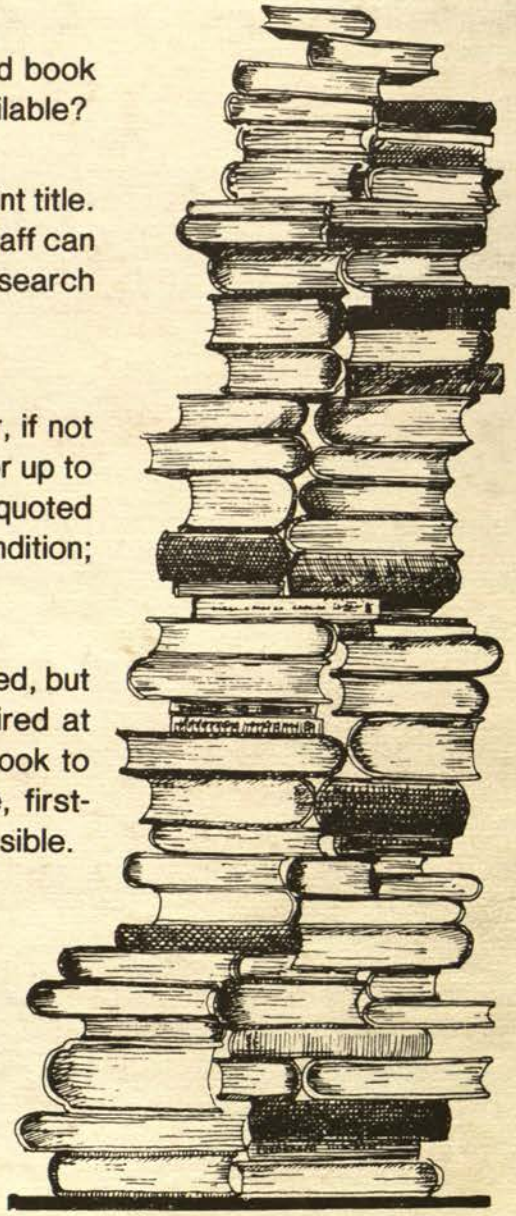
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